

Machine Learning in Practice I

Lecture 8

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Regression



Regression is optimization in a continuous parameter space

- Data model → feature optimization:
 - we need a parametric combination of the original variables
 - optimize with respect to some condition (c.f. SVM)
- Continuous value estimation:
 - the task can be to predict a continuous variable
 - classification can be based on probability distribution



task of regression

- we have data pairs $(X, Y) \rightarrow$ database
- we are looking for a model that $f(x; \omega) = y$, for all $x, y \in X \times Y$
 - we can not consider all possible functions (too large space)
 - fix a functional space (e.g. polynomials, Gaussians, etc.): $f \in F$
 - the variables ω select the actual function



task of regression

- there is no perfect model! → *philosophical problem ...*
 - not enough observation (data)
 - data do not contain all information
 - functional space does not cover all possible effects
- consequence: $f(x; \omega) = y$, for all $x, y \in X \times Y$ can not be satisfied
- what can be achieved: best representation, where the error is the smallest → what is “best”, and what is “error”?



task of regression – theoretical approach

- not enough information: $x \rightarrow y$ relation is not unique
- there is a probability to measure a *(data, label)* pair: $\rho(x, y) \in [0, 1]$
- for the complete dataset, assuming independent measurements

$$\rho(X, Y) = \prod_{n=1}^N \rho(x_n, y_n)$$

- for a given input there can be a lot of outputs: conditional probability (instead of a function)

$$\rho(Y | X) = \frac{\rho(X, Y)}{\rho(X)}$$

Bayes theorem

$$p(A | B) = \frac{p(A, B)}{p(B)}$$

task of regression – theoretical approach

- data model: $\rho(Y | X) \Rightarrow \rho(Y | X; \omega)$
- what is the best parameter choice? $\rightarrow$ *ensemble of worlds*
- define the “distribution of the parameters” using Bayes theorem

$$p(\omega | X, Y) = \frac{p(\omega, Y | X)}{p(Y | X)} = \frac{p(Y | \omega, X) p(\omega | X)}{p(Y | X)}$$

- as the function of the parameter $\rightarrow$ *likelihood function*
(assuming no restriction to possible parameter values)

$$L(\omega) = p(\omega | X, Y) \sim p(Y | \omega, X)$$

task of regression – theoretical approach

- best parameter value when $L(\omega) = p(\omega | X, Y)$ is maximal (*maximum likelihood*):
$$\frac{\partial L}{\partial \omega_i}(\omega_0) = 0$$
- *confidence levels*: $\Omega_p = \{\omega \mid L(\omega) \geq L_p = \text{constant}\} \rightarrow \text{hypersurfaces}$
- a confidence level can be characterized with the probability to be inside the volume
$$p = P(\omega \in \Omega_p)$$
 - for example: the probability that $\omega \in \Omega_{0.95}$ is 95% (according to $L(\omega)$)

task of regression – theoretical approach

$$N(\mu, C)(y) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{\det(2\pi C)}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(y-\mu)C^{-1}(y-\mu)}$$

- in practice we use **Gaussian** (*central limit theorem*)
 - assume that data points in the database are independent
 - data model gives the expected value
 - with unit correlation matrix → least square method (LSM)

$$\rho(Y | X; \omega) = \prod_{n=1}^N N(f(x_n; \omega), C_n)(y_n) \sim e^{-\frac{1}{2} \sum_{n=1}^N (y_n - f(x_n; \omega)) C_n^{-1} (y_n - f(x_n; \omega))} \Rightarrow e^{-\frac{1}{2} \chi^2}$$

- the likelihood $L(\omega) \sim e^{-\frac{1}{2} \chi^2(\omega)}$ → not Gaussian (except linear model)

task of regression – theoretical approach

$$N(\mu, C)(y) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{\det(2\pi C)}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(y-\mu)^T C^{-1}(y-\mu)}$$

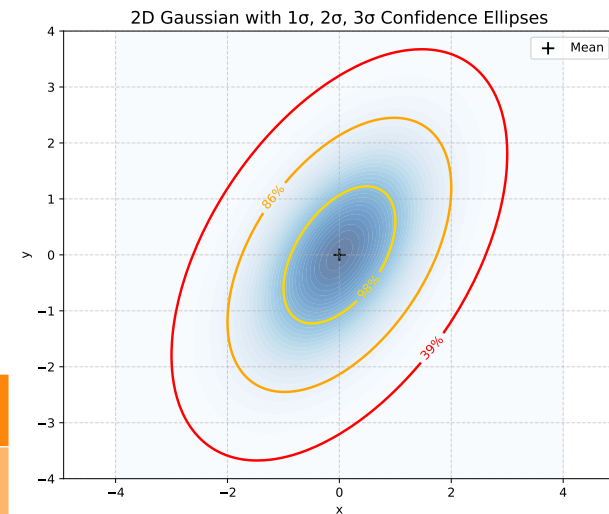
- expanding near the maximum likelihood → Gaussian with

$$\chi^2 = \chi_0^2 + (\omega - \omega_0)^T R^{-1} (\omega - \omega_0) + \dots$$

- Gaussian confidence levels

- the confidence surfaces are ellipsoids:
- confidence levels in **one dimension** $\chi^2 - \chi_0^2 = n$

sigma-level	1	2	3	4	5
confidence	68.27%	99.54%	99.73%	99.9937%	99.99994%



task of regression – theoretical approach

$$N(\mu, C)(y) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{\det(2\pi C)}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(y-\mu)^T C^{-1}(y-\mu)}$$

- Gaussian confidence levels and chi-squared distribution

$$p_d(\chi^2) = \frac{1}{2^{d/2} \Gamma(d/2)} (\chi^2)^{\frac{d}{2}-1} e^{-\frac{1}{2}\chi^2} d\chi^2$$

- probability to be inside $\chi^2 < r^2$ with the incomplete Gamma function

$$P(\chi^2 < r^2) = \int_0^{r^2} d\chi^2 p_d(\chi^2) = \frac{\gamma(d/2, r^2/2)}{\Gamma(d/2)}$$

$$\gamma(a, x) = \int_0^x t^{a-1} e^{-t} dt$$

$$\Gamma(a) = \gamma(a, \infty)$$

- in Python: `scipy.special.gammaincc`

$$\frac{1}{\sqrt{\det(2\pi C)}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(y-\mu)^T C^{-1}(y-\mu)} d^d y = \frac{1}{(2\pi)^{d/2}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}z^T z} d^d z = \frac{1}{2^{d/2} \Gamma(d/2)} (\chi^2)^{\frac{d}{2}-1} e^{-\frac{1}{2}\chi^2} d\chi^2$$

task of regression – theoretical approach

$$N(\mu, C)(y) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{\det(2\pi C)}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(y-\mu)C^{-1}(y-\mu)}$$

- calculation with Gaussian distribution: practical rules
 - assume y is Gaussian
 - introduce zero-mean variables $\xi = y - \mu$
 - expected values: $E(\xi) = 0$, $E(\xi_i \xi_j) = C_{ij} \Rightarrow E(\xi \xi) = C$
 - higher expected values are product of pairs!
e.g.: $E(\xi_i \xi_j \xi_k \xi_l) = C_{ij} C_{kl} + C_{ik} C_{jl} + C_{il} C_{jk}$

task of regression – theoretical approach

$$N(\mu, C)(y) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{\det(2\pi C)}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(y-\mu)^T C^{-1}(y-\mu)}$$

- hypothesis checking with chi-squared distribution:
 - assume Gaussian hypothesis and the data model are correct
 - treat the labels as independent random variables $y_n - f(x_n, \omega) \Rightarrow \xi_n$
 - compute expected value of chi-squared

$$E(\chi^2) = E\left(\sum_{n=1}^N \xi_n C_n^{-1} \xi_n\right) = \sum_{n=1}^N \sum_{i,j=1}^D (C_n^{-1})_{ij} E(\xi_{ni} \xi_{nj}) = N$$

- *chi-squared value over degrees of freedom is one*

Regression

Linear regression



simplest relation: linear function

- data are $(X, Y) = \{(x_n, y_n) \mid x_n \in \mathbb{R}^{N_x}, y_n \in \mathbb{R}^{N_y}, n = 1, 2, \dots, N\}$
- assume linear relation: $f(x; a, b) = ax + b$
- coefficient a is an matrix, b is a vector $[a] \Rightarrow N_x \times N_y, [b] \Rightarrow N_y$
- task to find the value (distribution or likelihood) of the coefficients
- simplest case, in lot of cases very powerful



one-dimensional case

- simplest: 1D linear regression, diagonal correlation matrix
- problem: data and labels are real numbers

$$(X, Y) = \{(x_n, y_n) \mid x_n, y_n \in \mathbb{R}, n = 1, 2, \dots, N\}$$

- assume there is a linear relation between the two: $f(x; a, b) = ax + b$

- chi-squared function $\chi^2 = \sum_{n=1}^N \frac{(ax_n + b - y_n)^2}{\sigma_n^2}$

- likelihood is Gaussian in a, b: $L(\omega) \sim e^{-\frac{1}{2}\chi^2(\omega)} = e^{-\sum_{n=1}^N \frac{(ax_n + b - y_n)^2}{2\sigma_n^2}}$



1D linear case

- computation: introduce new notations

- sum of inverse variances: $\sigma^2 = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{n=1}^N \frac{1}{\sigma_n^2}$

- averaging: $\langle u \rangle = \frac{\sum_n u_n / \sigma_n^2}{\sum_n 1 / \sigma_n^2} \Rightarrow \frac{1}{N} \sum_{n=1}^N u_n$

- correlation: $C_{uv} = \langle uv \rangle - \langle u \rangle \langle v \rangle = \langle (u - \langle u \rangle)(v - \langle v \rangle) \rangle$

- $\bar{b} = b + a \langle x \rangle - \langle y \rangle \Rightarrow y = \langle y \rangle + a(x - \langle x \rangle) + \bar{b}$

1D linear case

- computation: $\chi^2 = (a - C_{yx} C_{xx}^{-1}) \frac{N C_{xx}}{\sigma^2} (a - C_{yx} C_{xx}^{-1})^T + \frac{N \bar{b}^2}{N} + \text{constant}$

→ a and $\bar{b}$ are independent Gaussian variables

$$\mu_a = C_{yx} C_{xx}^{-1}, \quad C_a^{-1} = \frac{N C_{xx}}{\sigma^2}, \quad C_{\bar{b}}^{-1} = \frac{N}{\sigma^2}$$

→ the distribution of the variable $y = ax + b$ (with fixed x) is also Gaussian

$$\mu_y = \langle y \rangle + \mu_a (x - \langle x \rangle), \quad C_y = (x - \langle x \rangle) C_a (x - \langle x \rangle) + C_{\bar{b}}$$

1D linear case

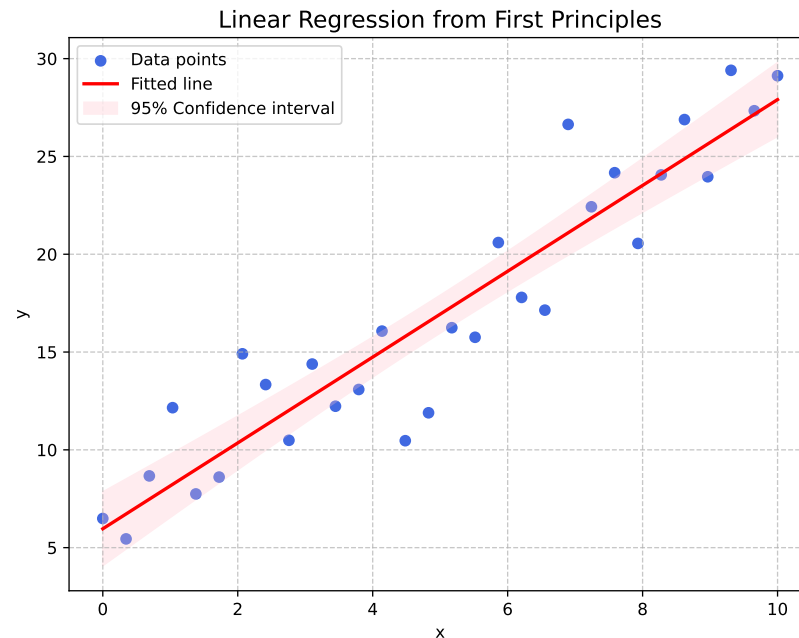
- interpretation:

- best slope value and variance

$$a = C_{yx} C_{xx}^{-1}, \quad \sigma_a^2 = \frac{1}{C_{xx} \sum_n 1/\sigma_n^2} \Rightarrow \frac{\sigma^2}{\sum_n (x_n - \bar{x})^2}$$

- chi-squared expected value

$$\frac{1}{N} \sum_n \frac{(y_n - ax_n - b)^2}{\sigma_n^2} = 0.81$$



higher dimensional linear case

- data are $(X, Y) = \{(x_n, y_n) \mid x_n \in \mathbb{R}^{N_x}, y_n \in \mathbb{R}^{N_y}, n = 1, 2, \dots, N\}$
- assume linear relation: $f(x; a, b) = ax + b$
- coefficient a is an matrix, b is a vector $[a] \Rightarrow N_x \times N_y, [b] \Rightarrow N_y$
- calculation and formulae remain the same

$$a = C_{yx} C_{xx}^{-1}, \quad C_a^{-1} = \frac{N}{\sigma^2} C_{xx}$$

higher dimensional linear case

- example: $N_x = N_y = 2, N_{data} = 100,$

$$a_{true} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 \\ 3 & 4 \end{pmatrix}, \quad b_{true} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

- then the result is

$$a_{data} = \begin{pmatrix} 0.99 & 2.03 \\ 3.06 & 3.96 \end{pmatrix}, \quad b_{data} = \begin{pmatrix} 0.98 \\ -0.98 \end{pmatrix}$$

```
# linear regression in 2D
```

```
Ndata = 100
```

```
a = np.array([[1, 2],[3, 4]])
```

```
b = np.array([1,-1])
```

```
x = np.random.uniform(0,1, size=(2, Ndata))
```

```
noise = np.random.normal(0,0.1, size=(2, Ndata))
```

```
y = a@x + noise + b[:,None]
```

```
barx = np.mean(x, axis=1)
```

```
bary = np.mean(y, axis=1)
```

```
Cxx = (x-barx[:,None])@(x-barx[:,None]).T/2
```

```
Cyx = (y-bary[:,None])@(x-barx[:,None]).T/2
```

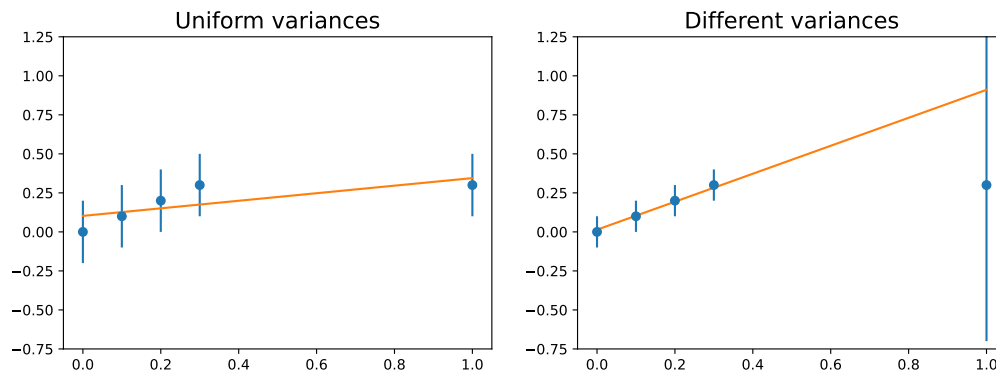
```
a1 = Cyx@np.linalg.inv(Cxx)
```

```
b1 = bary - a1@barx
```

```
omega1, b1
```

role of the individual variances

- effect of different variances → weight importance of points



- variance

- ➔ measurement (tedious)
- ➔ theoretical considerations (e.g. relative error is $\sigma \sim \sqrt{N}$)
- ➔ user expectations (e.g. some points are important)

role of the individual variances

- correlation matrix from measurements:

→ assume that the data are i.i.d. normal $p(x) \sim \prod_{n=1}^N e^{-\frac{1}{2}(x_n - \mu)C^{-1}(x_n - \mu)}$

→ distribution of $\bar{x} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{n=1}^N x_n$ is normal with $E(\bar{x}) = \mu \rightarrow$ estimate for mean

→ mean of $\bar{C}_{ij} = \frac{1}{N-1} \sum_{n=1}^N (x_n - \bar{x})_i (x_n - \bar{x})_j \rightarrow E(\bar{C}_{ij}) = C_{ij} \rightarrow$ variance

END OF LECTURE 8